Rna rnalen basecount definitions

Recall the definitions: The set of RNA strands S is defined (recursively) by:

Basis Step:	$\mathtt{A} \in S, \mathtt{C} \in S, \mathtt{U} \in S, \mathtt{G} \in S$
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S$ and $b \in B$, then $sb \in S$

where sb is string concatenation.

The function *rnalen* that computes the length of RNA strands in S is defined recursively by:

		$rnalen : S$	$\to \mathbb{Z}^+$
Basis Step:	If $b \in B$ then	$rnalen(b)$	$= 1$
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S$ and $b \in B$, then	$rnalen(sb)$	$= 1 + rnalen(s)$

The function *basecount* that computes the number of a given base b appearing in a RNA strand s is defined recursively by:

		$basecount : S \times B$	$\to \mathbb{N}$	
Basis Step:	If $b_1 \in B, b_2 \in B$	$basecount(\ (b_1, b_2)\ )$	$= \begin{cases} 1 & \text{when } b_1 = b_2 \\ 0 & \text{when } b_1 \neq b_2 \end{cases}$	
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S, b_1 \in B, b_2 \in B$	$basecount(\ (sb_1, b_2)\ )$	$= \begin{cases} 1 + basecount(\ (s, b_2)\ ) & \text{when } b_1 = b_2 \\ basecount(\ (s, b_2)\ ) & \text{when } b_1 \neq b_2 \end{cases}$	

Quiz translating counting quantifiers

Suppose $P(x)$ is a predicate over a domain D.

1. To translate the statement "There are at least two elements in D where the predicate P evaluates to true", we could write

$$\exists x_1 \in D\, \exists x_2 \in D\, (P(x_1) \wedge P(x_2) \wedge _____)$$

2. To translate the statement "There are at most two elements in D where the predicate P evaluates to true", we could write

$$\forall x_1 \in D\, \forall x_2 \in D\, \forall x_3 \in D\ (\ (\ P(x_1) \wedge P(x_2) \wedge P(x_3)\ ) \to (\ x_1 = x_2 \vee x_2 = x_3 \vee x_1 = x_3\ )\ )$$

   Why?

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Proof strategies quantification finite domain

When a predicate $P(x)$ is over a **finite** domain:

- To show that $\forall x P(x)$ is true: check that $P(x)$ evaluates to T at each domain element by evaluating over and over. This is called "Proof of universal by **exhaustion**".
- To show that $\forall x P(x)$ is false: find a **counterexample**, a domain element where $P(x)$ evaluates to F.
- To show that $\exists x P(x)$ is true: find a **witness**, a domain element where $P(x)$ evaluates to T.
- To show that $\exists x P(x)$ is false: check that $P(x)$ evaluates to F at each domain element by evaluating over and over. DeMorgan's Law gives that $\neg\exists x P(x) \quad \equiv \quad \forall x \neg P(x)$ so this amounts to a proof of universal by exhaustion.

Proof strategy universal generalization

New! Proof by universal generalization: To prove that $\forall x\, P(x)$ is true, we can take an arbitrary element e from the domain of quantification and show that $P(e)$ is true, without making any assumptions about e other than that it comes from the domain.
An **arbitrary** element of a set or domain is a fixed but unknown element from that set.

Proof strategies conditionals

New! Proof of conditional by direct proof: To prove that the conditional statement $p \to q$ is true, we can assume p is true and use that assumption to show q is true.

New! Proof of conditional by contrapositive proof: To prove that the implication $p \to q$ is true, we can assume q is false and use that assumption to show p is also false.

New! Proof of disjuction using equivalent conditional: To prove that the disjunction $p \vee q$ is true, we can rewrite it equivalently as $\neg p \to q$ and then use direct proof or contrapositive proof.

Proof strategies proof by cases

New! Proof by Cases: To prove q, we can work by cases by first describing all possible cases we might be in and then showing that each one guarantees q. Formally, if we know that $p_1 \vee p_2$ is true, and we can show that $(p_1 \to q)$ is true and we can show that $(p_2 \to q)$, then we can conclude q is true.

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Proof strategies ands

New! Proof of conjunctions with subgoals: To show that $p \wedge q$ is true, we have two subgoals: subgoal (1) prove p is true; and, subgoal (2) prove q is true.

To show that $p \wedge q$ is false, it's enough to prove that $\neg p$.
To show that $p \wedge q$ is false, it's enough to prove that $\neg q$.

Sets equality subset definition

Definitions:

A **set** is an unordered collection of elements. When A and B are sets, $A = B$ (set equality) means

$$\forall x(x \in A \leftrightarrow x \in B)$$

When A and B are sets, $A \subseteq B$ ("A is a **subset** of B") means

$$\forall x(x \in A \rightarrow x \in B)$$

When A and B are sets, $A \subsetneq B$ ("A is a **proper subset** of B") means

$$(A \subseteq B) \wedge (A \neq B)$$

Sets proof strategies

To prove that one set is a subset of another, e.g. to show $A \subseteq B$:

To prove that two sets are equal, e.g. to show $A = B$:

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Sets equality example

Example: $\{43, 7, 9\} = \{7, 43, 9, 7\}$

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Sets basic proofs

Prove or **disprove**: $\{\texttt{A}, \texttt{C}, \texttt{U}, \texttt{G}\} \subseteq \{\texttt{AA}, \texttt{AC}, \texttt{AU}, \texttt{AG}\}$

Prove or **disprove**: For some set B, $\emptyset \in B$.

Prove or **disprove**: For every set B, $\emptyset \in B$.

Prove or **disprove**: The empty set is a subset of every set.

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Prove or **disprove**: The empty set is a proper subset of every set.

Prove or **disprove**: $\{4, 6\} \subseteq \{n \mid \exists c \in \mathbb{Z}(n = 4c)\}$

Prove or **disprove**: $\{4, 6\} \subseteq \{n \bmod 10 \mid \exists c \in \mathbb{Z}(n = 4c)\}$

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Proofs signposting

Consider . . . , an **arbitrary** . . . . **Assume** . . . , we **want to show** that . . . . Which is what was needed, so the proof is complete □.

or, in other words:

Let . . . be an **arbitrary** . . . . **Assume** . . . , **WTS** that . . . **QED**.

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Set operations union intersection powerset

Cartesian product: When A and B are sets,

$$A \times B = \{(a, b) \mid a \in A \wedge b \in B\}$$

Example: $\{43, 9\} \times \{9, \mathbb{Z}\} =$

Example: $\mathbb{Z} \times \emptyset =$

Union: When A and B are sets,

$$A \cup B = \{x \mid x \in A \vee x \in B\}$$

Example: $\{43, 9\} \cup \{9, \mathbb{Z}\} =$

Example: $\mathbb{Z} \cup \emptyset =$

Intersection: When A and B are sets,

$$A \cap B = \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \in B\}$$

Example: $\{43, 9\} \cap \{9, \mathbb{Z}\} =$

Example: $\mathbb{Z} \cap \emptyset =$

Set difference: When A and B are sets,

$$A - B = \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \notin B\}$$

Example: $\{43, 9\} - \{9, \mathbb{Z}\} =$

Example: $\mathbb{Z} - \emptyset =$

Disjoint sets: sets A and B are disjoint means $A \cap B = \emptyset$

Example: $\{43, 9\}, \{9, \mathbb{Z}\}$ are not disjoint

Example: The sets $\mathbb{Z}$ and $\emptyset$ are disjoint

Power set: When U is a set, $\mathcal{P}(U) = \{X \mid X \subseteq U\}$

Example: $\mathcal{P}(\{43, 9\}) =$

Example: $\mathcal{P}(\emptyset) =$

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Sets basic proofs operations

Let $W = \mathcal{P}(\{1, 2, 3, 4, 5\})$

Example elements in W are:

Prove or **disprove**: $\forall A \in W \, \forall B \in W \; (A \subseteq B \; \rightarrow \; \mathcal{P}(A) \subseteq \mathcal{P}(B))$

Prove or **disprove**: $\forall A \in W \, \forall B \in W \; (\mathcal{P}(A) = \mathcal{P}(B) \; \rightarrow \; A = B)$

Prove or **disprove**: $\forall A \in W \, \forall B \in W \, \forall C \in W \; (A \cup B = A \cup C \; \rightarrow \; B = C)$

Proof strategies road map

We now have propositional and predicate logic that can help us express statements about any domain. We will develop proof strategies to craft valid argument for proving that such statements are true or disproving them (by showing they are false). We will practice these strategies with statements about sets and numbers, both because they are familiar and because they can be used to build cryptographic systems. Then we will apply proof strategies more broadly to prove statements about data structures and machine learning applications.

Numbers facts

1. Addition and multiplication of real numbers are each commutative and associative.

2. The product of two positive numbers is positive, of two negative numbers is positive, and of a positive and a negative number is negative.

3. The sum of two integers, the product of two integers, and the difference between two integers are each integers.

4. For every integer x there is no integer strictly between x and $x + 1$,

5. When x, y are positive integers, $xy \geq x$ and $xy \geq y$.

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Factoring definition

Definition: When a and b are integers and a is nonzero, a **divides** b means there is an integer c such that $b = ac$.

Symbolically, $F(\ (a, b)\ ) =$ and is a predicate over the domain _____

Other (synonymous) ways to say that $F(\ (a, b)\ )$ is true:

a is a **factor** of b a is a **divisor** of b b is a **multiple** of a $a|b$

When a is a positive integer and b is any integer, $a|b$ exactly when b **mod** $a = 0$

When a is a positive integer and b is any integer, $a|b$ exactly when $b = a \cdot (b$ **div** $a)$

Factoring translation examples

Translate these quantified statements by matching to English statement on right.

$\exists a \in \mathbb{Z}^{\neq 0}\ (\ F(\ (a, a)\ )\ )$	Every nonzero integer is a factor of itself.
$\exists a \in \mathbb{Z}^{\neq 0}\ (\ \neg F(\ (a, a)\ )\ )$	No nonzero integer is a factor of itself.
$\forall a \in \mathbb{Z}^{\neq 0}\ (\ F(\ (a, a)\ )\ )$	At least one nonzero integer is a factor of itself.
$\forall a \in \mathbb{Z}^{\neq 0}\ (\ \neg F(\ (a, a)\ )\ )$	Some nonzero integer is not a factor of itself.

Factoring basic claims

Claim: Every nonzero integer is a factor of itself.

Proof:

Prove or **Disprove**: There is a nonzero integer that does not divide its square.

Prove or **Disprove**: Every positive factor of a positive integer is less than or equal to it.

Factoring basic claims continued

Claim: Every nonzero integer is a factor of itself and every nonzero integer divides its square.

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Factoring even odd

Definition: an integer n is **even** means that there is an integer a such that $n = 2a$; an integer n is **odd** means that there is an integer a such that $n = 2a + 1$. Equivalently, an integer n is **even** means $n \ \mathbf{mod}\ 2 = 0$; an integer n is **odd** means $n \ \mathbf{mod}\ 2 = 1$. Also, an integer is even if and only if it is not odd.

Prime number definition

Definition: An integer p greater than 1 is called **prime** means the only positive factors of p are 1 and p. A positive integer that is greater than 1 and is not prime is called composite.

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Primes basic claims

Extra examples: Use the definition to prove that 1 is not prime, 2 is prime, 3 is prime, 4 is not prime, 5 is prime, 6 is not prime, and 7 is prime.

True or False: The statement "There are three consecutive positive integers that are prime."

Hint: These numbers would be of the form $p, p+1, p+2$ (where p is a positive integer).

Proof: We need to show _____

True or False: The statement "There are three consecutive odd positive integers that are prime."

Hint: These numbers would be of the form $p, p+2, p+4$ (where p is an odd positive integer).

Proof: We need to show _____

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Logical operators binary truth table definition

Input		Output				
		Conjunction	Exclusive or	Disjunction	Conditional	Biconditional
p	q	$p \wedge q$	$p \oplus q$	$p \vee q$	$p \to q$	$p \leftrightarrow q$
T	T	T	F	T	T	T
T	F	F	T	T	F	F
F	T	F	T	T	T	F
F	F	F	F	F	T	T
		"p and q"	"p xor q"	"p or q"	"if p then q"	"p if and only if q"

Hypothesis conclusion

The only way to make the conditional statement $p \to q$ false is to _____

The **hypothesis** of $p \to q$ is _____ The **antecedent** of $p \to q$ is _____

The **conclusion** of $p \to q$ is _____ The **consequent** of $p \to q$ is _____

Converse inverse contrapositive

The **converse** of $p \to q$ is _____

The **inverse** of $p \to q$ is _____

The **contrapositive** of $p \to q$ is _____

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Compound propositions recursive definition

We can use a recursive definition to describe all compound propositions that use propositional variables from a specified collection. Here's the definition for all compound propositions whose propositional variables are in $\{p, q\}$.

Basis Step:	p and q are each a compound proposition
Recursive Step:	If x is a compound proposition then so is $(\neg x)$ and if x and y are both compound propositions then so is each of $(x \wedge y), (x \oplus y), (x \vee y), (x \to y), (x \leftrightarrow y)$

Compound propositions precedence

Order of operations (Precedence) for logical operators:

Negation, then conjunction / disjunction, then conditional / biconditionals.

Example: $\neg p \vee \neg q$ means $(\neg p) \vee (\neg q)$.

Logical equivalence identities ififf

(Some) logical equivalences

$p \to q \equiv \neg p \vee q$

$p \to q \equiv \neg q \to \neg p$ **Contrapositive**

$\neg(p \to q) \equiv p \wedge \neg q$

$\neg(p \leftrightarrow q) \equiv p \oplus q$

$p \leftrightarrow q \equiv q \leftrightarrow p$

Extra examples:

$p \leftrightarrow q$ is not logically equivalent to $p \wedge q$ because _____

$p \to q$ is not logically equivalent to $q \to p$ because _____

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Logical operators english synonyms

Common ways to express logical operators in English:

Negation $\neg p$ can be said in English as

- Not p.
- It's not the case that p.
- p is false.

Conjunction $p \wedge q$ can be said in English as

- p and q.
- Both p and q are true.
- p but q.

Exclusive or $p \oplus q$ can be said in English as

- p or q, but not both.
- Exactly one of p and q is true.

Disjunction $p \vee q$ can be said in English as

- p or q, or both.
- p or q (inclusive).
- At least one of p and q is true.

Conditional $p \rightarrow q$ can be said in English as

- if p, then q.
- p is sufficient for q.
- q when p.
- q whenever p.
- p implies q.
- q follows from p.
- q is necessary for p.
- p only if q.

Biconditional

- p if and only if q.
- p iff q.
- If p then q, and conversely.
- p is necessary and sufficient for q.

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Compound propositions translation

Translation: Express each of the following sentences as compound propositions, using the given propositions.

"A sufficient condition for the warranty to be good is that you bought the computer less than a year ago"

w is "the warranty is good"
b is "you bought the computer less than a year ago"

"Whenever the message was sent from an unknown system, it is scanned for viruses."

s is "The message is scanned for viruses"
u is "The message was sent from an unknown system"

"I will complete my to-do list only if I put a reminder in my calendar"

d is "I will complete my to-do list"
c is "I put a reminder in my calendar"

Consistency def

Definition: A collection of compound propositions is called **consistent** if there is an assignment of truth values to the propositional variables that makes each of the compound propositions true.

Predicate definition

Definition: A **predicate** is a function from a given set (domain) to $\{T, F\}$.

A predicate can be applied, or **evaluated** at, an element of the domain.

Usually, a predicate *describes a property* that domain elements may or may not have.

Two predicates over the same domain are **equivalent** means they evaluate to the same truth values for all possible assignments of domain elements to the input. In other words, they are equivalent means that they are equal as functions.

To define a predicate, we must specify its domain and its value at each domain element. The rule assigning truth values to domain elements can be specified using a formula, English description, in a table (if the domain is finite), or recursively (if the domain is recursively defined).

Note: Since logical operations are functions, they can be part of the definitions of predicates.

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Predicate examples finite domain

Input	Output		
	$V(x)$	$N(x)$	$Mystery(x)$
x	$[x]_{2c,3} > 0$	$[x]_{2c,3} < 0$	
000	F		T
001	T		T
010	T		T
011	T		F
100	F		F
101	F		T
110	F		F
111	F		T

The domain for each of the predicates $V(x)$, $N(x)$, $Mystery(x)$ is _____.

Fill in the table of values for the predicate $N(x)$ based on the formula given.

Predicate truth set definition

Definition: The **truth set** of a predicate is the collection of all elements in its domain where the predicate evaluates to T.

Notice that specifying the domain and the truth set is sufficient for defining a predicate.

Predicate truth set example

The truth set for the predicate $V(x)$ is _____.

The truth set for the predicate $N(x)$ is _____.

The truth set for the predicate $Mystery(x)$ is _____.

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Quantification definition

The **universal quantification** of predicate $P(x)$ over domain U is the statement "$P(x)$ for all values of x in the domain U" and is written $\forall x P(x)$ or $\forall x \in U\ P(x)$. When the domain is finite, universal quantification over the domain is equivalent to iterated *conjunction* (ands).

The **existential quantification** of predicate $P(x)$ over domain U is the statement "There exists an element x in the domain U such that $P(x)$" and is written $\exists x P(x)$ for $\exists x \in U\ P(x)$. When the domain is finite, existential quantification over the domain is equivalent to iterated *disjunction* (ors).

Quantification logical equivalence

Statements involving predicates and quantifiers are **logically equivalent** means they have the same truth value no matter which predicates (domains and functions) are substituted in.

Quantifier version of De Morgan's laws: $\boxed{\neg\forall x P(x) \ \equiv\ \exists x\,(\neg P(x))}$ $\boxed{\neg\exists x Q(x) \ \equiv\ \forall x\,(\neg Q(x))}$

Quantification witness counterexample

An element for which $P(x) = F$ is called a **counterexample** of $\forall x P(x)$. When there is a counterexample in the domain of predicate P, $\forall x P(x)$ is false.

An element for which $P(x) = T$ is called a **witness** of $\exists x P(x)$. When there is a witness in the domain of predicate P, then $\exists x P(x)$ is true.

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Quantification examples finite domain

Examples of quantifications using $V(x), N(x), Mystery(x)$:

True or **False**: $\exists x\ (\ V(x) \vee N(x)\ )$

True or **False**: $\forall x\ (\ V(x) \vee N(x)\ )$

True or **False**: $\exists x\ (\ \neg V(x) \wedge \neg N(x)\ )$

True or **False**: $\forall x\ (\ V(x) \rightarrow N(x)\ )$

True or **False**: $\exists x\ (\ N(x) \leftrightarrow Mystery(x)\ )$

Rewrite $\neg\forall x\ (\ V(x) \oplus Mystery(x)\ )$ into a logically equivalent statement.

Notice that these are examples where the predicates have *finite* domain. How would we evaluate quantifications where the domain may be infinite?

Rna rnalen basecount definitions

Recall the definitions: The set of RNA strands S is defined (recursively) by:

Basis Step:	$\mathtt{A} \in S, \mathtt{C} \in S, \mathtt{U} \in S, \mathtt{G} \in S$
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S$ and $b \in B$, then $sb \in S$

where sb is string concatenation.

The function *rnalen* that computes the length of RNA strands in S is defined recursively by:

		$rnalen : S$	$\rightarrow \mathbb{Z}^+$
Basis Step:	If $b \in B$ then	$rnalen(b)$	$= 1$
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S$ and $b \in B$, then	$rnalen(sb)$	$= 1 + rnalen(s)$

The function *basecount* that computes the number of a given base b appearing in a RNA strand s is defined recursively by:

		$basecount : S \times B$	$\rightarrow \mathbb{N}$	
Basis Step:	If $b_1 \in B, b_2 \in B$	$basecount(\ (b_1, b_2)\ )$	$= \begin{cases} 1 & \text{when } b_1 = b_2 \\ 0 & \text{when } b_1 \neq b_2 \end{cases}$	
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S, b_1 \in B, b_2 \in B$	$basecount(\ (sb_1, b_2)\ )$	$= \begin{cases} 1 + basecount(\ (s, b_2)\ ) & \text{when } b_1 = b_2 \\ basecount(\ (s, b_2)\ ) & \text{when } b_1 \neq b_2 \end{cases}$	

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Predicate notation

Notation: for a predicate P with domain $X_1 \times \cdots \times X_n$ and a n-tuple $(x_1, \ldots, x_n)$ with each $x_i \in X$, we can write $P(x_1, \ldots, x_n)$ to mean $P(\ (x_1, \ldots, x_n)\ )$.

Predicates projecting example rna basecount

New predicates from old: Consider several different predicates that are related to BC:

1. Define the **new** predicate with domain $S \times B$ and rule

   $$basecount(\ (s, b)\ ) = 3$$

   Example domain element where predicate is T:

2. Define the **new** predicate with domain $S \times \mathbb{N}$ and rule

   $$basecount(\ (s, \mathtt{A})\ ) = n$$

   Example domain element where predicate is T:

3. Define the **new** predicate with domain $S \times B$ and rule

   $$\exists n \in \mathbb{N}\ (basecount(\ (s, b)\ ) = n)$$

   Example domain element where predicate is T:

4. Define the **new** predicate with domain S and rule

   $$\forall b \in B\ (basecount(\ (s, b)\ ) = 1)$$

   Example domain element where predicate is T:

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Nested quantifiers

Nested quantifiers

$$\forall s \in S\ \forall b \in B\ \forall n \in \mathbb{N}\ (basecount(\ (s, b)\ ) = n)$$

In English:

Counterexample that proves this universal quantification is false:

$$\forall n \in \mathbb{N}\ \forall s \in S\ \forall b \in B\ (basecount(\ (s, b)\ ) = n)$$

In English:

Counterexample that proves this universal quantification is false:

Compound proposition definitions

Proposition: Declarative sentence that is true or false (not both).

Propositional variable: Variable that represents a proposition.

Compound proposition: New proposition formed from existing propositions (potentially) using logical operators. *Note*: A propositional variable is one example of a compound proposition.

Truth table: Table with one row for each of the possible combinations of truth values of the input and an additional column that shows the truth value of the result of the operation corresponding to a particular row.

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Logical equivalence

Logical equivalence : Two compound propositions are **logically equivalent** means that they have the same truth values for all settings of truth values to their propositional variables.

Tautology: A compound proposition that evaluates to true for all settings of truth values to its propositional variables; it is abbreviated T.

Contradiction: A compound proposition that evaluates to false for all settings of truth values to its propositional variables; it is abbreviated F.

Contingency: A compound proposition that is neither a tautology nor a contradiction.

Tautology contradiction contingency examples

Label each of the following as a tautology, contradiction, or contingency.

$p \wedge p$

$p \oplus p$

$p \vee p$

$p \vee \neg p$

$p \wedge \neg p$

Logical equivalence extra example

Extra Example: Which of the compound propositions in the table below are logically equivalent?

Input		Output				
p	q	$\neg(p \wedge \neg q)$	$\neg(\neg p \vee \neg q)$	$(\neg p \vee q)$	$(\neg q \vee \neg p)$	$(p \wedge q)$
T	T					
T	F					
F	T					
F	F					

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Logical equivalence identities andornotxor

(Some) logical equivalences

Can replace p and q with any compound proposition

$\neg(\neg p) \equiv p$				**Double negation**
$p \vee q \equiv q \vee p$		$p \wedge q \equiv q \wedge p$		**Commutativity** Ordering of terms
$(p \vee q) \vee r \equiv p \vee (q \vee r)$		$(p \wedge q) \wedge r \equiv p \wedge (q \wedge r)$		**Associativity** Grouping of terms
$p \wedge F \equiv F$	$p \vee T \equiv T$	$p \wedge T \equiv p$	$p \vee F \equiv p$	**Domination** aka short circuit evaluation
$\neg(p \wedge q) \equiv \neg p \vee \neg q$		$\neg(p \vee q) \equiv \neg p \wedge \neg q$		**DeMorgan's Laws**

Fixed width example

Decimal $b = 10$	Binary $b = 2$	Binary fixed-width 10 $b = 2$, $w = 10$	Binary fixed-width 7 $b = 2$, $w = 7$	Binary fixed-width 4 $b = 2$, $w = 4$
$(20)_{10}$				

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Fixed width fractional

Definition For b an integer greater than 1, w a positive integer, w' a positive integer, and x a real number the **base b fixed-width expansion of x with integer part width w and fractional part width w'** is $(a_{w-1} \cdots a_1 a_0 . c_1 \cdots c_{w'})_{b,w,w'}$ where $a_0, a_1, \ldots, a_{w-1}, c_1, \ldots, c_{w'}$ are nonnegative integers less than b and

$$x \geq \sum_{i=0}^{w-1} a_i b^i + \sum_{j=1}^{w'} c_j b^{-j} \qquad \text{and} \qquad x < \sum_{i=0}^{w-1} a_i b^i + \sum_{j=1}^{w'} c_j b^{-j} + b^{-w'}$$

3.75 in fixed-width binary, integer part width 2, fractional part width 8	
0.1 in fixed-width binary, integer part width 2, fractional part width 8	

```
|welcome $jshell
|  Welcome to JShell -- Version 10.0.1
|  For an introduction type: /help intro

jshell> 0.1
$1 ==>

jshell> 0.2
$2 ==>

jshell> 0.1 + 0.2
$3 ==>

jshell> Math.sqrt(2)
$4 ==>

jshell> Math.sqrt(2)*Math.sqrt(2)
$5 ==>

jshell>
```

Note: Java uses floating point, not fixed width representation, but similar rounding errors appear in both.

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Negative int expansions

Representing negative integers in binary: Fix a positive integer width for the representation w, $w > 1$.

	To represent a positive integer n	To represent a negative integer $-n$
Sign-magnitude	$[0a_{w-2} \cdots a_0]_{s,w}$, where $n = (a_{w-2} \cdots a_0)_{2,w-1}$ Example $n = 17$, $w = 7$:	$[1a_{w-2} \cdots a_0]_{s,w}$, where $n = (a_{w-2} \cdots a_0)_{2,w-1}$ Example $-n = -17$, $w = 7$:
2s complement	$[0a_{w-2} \cdots a_0]_{2c,w}$, where $n = (a_{w-2} \cdots a_0)_{2,w-1}$ Example $n = 17$, $w = 7$:	$[1a_{w-2} \cdots a_0]_{2c,w}$, where $2^{w-1} - n = (a_{w-2} \cdots a_0)_{2,w-1}$ Example $-n = -17$, $w = 7$:

Calculating 2s complement

For positive integer n, to represent $-n$ in 2s complement with width w,

- Calculate $2^{w-1} - n$, convert result to binary fixed-width $w - 1$, pad with leading 1, or
- Express $-n$ as a sum of powers of 2, where the leftmost 2^{w-1} is negative weight, or
- Convert n to binary fixed-width w, flip bits, add 1 (ignore overflow)

Challenge: use definitions to explain why each of these approaches works.

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Netflix intro

What data should we encode about each Netflix account holder to help us make effective recommendations?

In machine learning, clustering can be used to group similar data for prediction and recommendation. For example, each Netflix user's viewing history can be represented as a n-tuple indicating their preferences about movies in the database, where n is the number of movies in the database. People with similar tastes in movies can then be clustered to provide recommendations of movies for one another. Mathematically, clustering is based on a notion of distance between pairs of n-tuples.

Data types

Term	**Examples**: (add additional examples from class)
set unordered collection of elements *repetition doesn't matter* *Equal sets agree on membership of all elements*	$7 \in \{43, 7, 9\}$ $\quad 2 \notin \{43, 7, 9\}$
n-tuple ordered sequence of elements with n "slots" $(n > 0)$ *repetition matters, fixed length* *Equal n-tuples have corresponding components equal*	
string ordered finite sequence of elements each from specified set (called the alphabet over which the string is defined) *repetition matters, arbitrary finite length* *Equal strings have same length and corresponding characters equal*	

Special cases:

When $n = 2$, the 2-tuple is called an **ordered pair**.

A string of length 0 is called the **empty string** and is denoted λ.

A set with no elements is called the **empty set** and is denoted $\{\}$ or $\emptyset$.

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Set operations

To define a set we can use the roster method, set builder notation, a recursive definition, and also we can apply a set operation to other sets.

New! Cartesian product of sets and **set-wise concatenation of sets of strings**

Definition: Let X and Y be sets. The **Cartesian product** of X and Y, denoted $X \times Y$, is the set of all ordered pairs (x, y) where $x \in X$ and $y \in Y$

$$X \times Y = \{(x, y) \mid x \in X \text{ and } y \in Y\}$$

Conventions: (1) Cartesian products can be chained together to result in sets of n-tuples and (2) When we form the Cartesian product of a set with itself $X \times X$ we can denote that set as X^2, or X^n for the Cartesian product of a set with itself n times for a positive integer n.

Definition: Let X and Y be sets of strings over the same alphabet. The **set-wise concatenation** of X and Y, denoted $X \circ Y$, is the set of all results of string concatenation xy where $x \in X$ and $y \in Y$

$$X \circ Y = \{xy \mid x \in X \text{ and } y \in Y\}$$

Pro-tip: the meaning of writing one element next to another like xy depends on the data-types of x and y. When x and y are strings, the convention is that xy is the result of string concatenation. When x and y are numbers, the convention is that xy is the result of multiplication. This is (one of the many reasons) why is it very important to declare the data-type of variables before we use them.

Fill in the missing entries in the table:

Set	Example elements in this set and their data type:
B	`A` `C` `G` `U`
	$(\texttt{A}, \texttt{C})$ $(\texttt{U}, \texttt{U})$
$B \times \{-1, 0, 1\}$	
$\{-1, 0, 1\} \times B$	
	$(0, 0, 0)$
$\{\texttt{A}, \texttt{C}, \texttt{G}, \texttt{U}\} \circ \{\texttt{A}, \texttt{C}, \texttt{G}, \texttt{U}\}$	
	`GGGG`

Defining functions

New! Defining functions A function is defined by its (1) domain, (2) codomain, and (3) rule assigning each element in the domain exactly one element in the codomain.

The domain and codomain are nonempty sets.
The rule can be depicted as a table, formula, piecewise definition, or English description.
The notation is

"Let the function FUNCTION-NAME: DOMAIN $\to$ CODOMAIN be given by
FUNCTION-NAME(x) = ... for every $x \in DOMAIN$".

or

"Consider the function FUNCTION-NAME: DOMAIN $\to$ CODOMAIN defined as
FUNCTION-NAME(x) = ... for every $x \in DOMAIN$".

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Example: The absolute value function

Domain

Codomain

Rule

Defining functions recursively

When the domain of a function is a *recursively defined set*, the rule assigning images to domain elements (outputs) can also be defined recursively.

Recall: The set of RNA strands S is defined (recursively) by:

Basis Step:	$\mathtt{A} \in S, \mathtt{C} \in S, \mathtt{U} \in S, \mathtt{G} \in S$
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S$ and $b \in B$, then $sb \in S$

where sb is string concatenation.

Definition (Of a function, recursively) A function *rnalen* that computes the length of RNA strands in S is defined by:

		$rnalen : S$	$\to \mathbb{Z}^+$
Basis Step:	If $b \in B$ then	$rnalen(b)$	$= 1$
Recursive Step:	If $s \in S$ and $b \in B$, then	$rnalen(sb)$	$= 1 + rnalen(s)$

The domain of *rnalen* is

The codomain of *rnalen* is

Example function application:

$$rnalen(\mathtt{ACU}) =$$

Example: A function *basecount* that computes the number of a given base b appearing in a RNA strand s is defined recursively:

$$basecount : S \times B \to \mathbb{N}$$

Basis Step: If $b_1 \in B, b_2 \in B$

$$basecount(\ (b_1, b_2)\ ) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{when } b_1 = b_2 \\ 0 & \text{when } b_1 \neq b_2 \end{cases}$$

Recursive Step: If $s \in S, b_1 \in B, b_2 \in B$

$$basecount(\ (sb_1, b_2)\ ) = \begin{cases} 1 + basecount(\ (s, b_2)\ ) & \text{when } b_1 = b_2 \\ basecount(\ (s, b_2)\ ) & \text{when } b_1 \neq b_2 \end{cases}$$